

Online Appendix for “Why Women Work the Way They Do in Japan: Roles of Fiscal Policies”

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This online appendix contains additional details of the model, the data and calibration for [Kitao and Mikoshiba \(2026\)](#).

1 The JPSC Data

This section provides more details about our use of the JPSC data and calibration of the model.

1.1 JPSC Samples and Employment Classifications

Sample: We focus on a sample of women who are included in Cohort A of the JPSC. Individuals of the cohort were born between 1959-1969, and we have information until 2018, when they were 49-59 years old.

We focus on employed individuals and those not in labor force, and exclude self-employed individuals. We use samples for whom there are at least two consecutive years of observations. We also exclude observations from years in which individuals reside abroad or their location is unknown, and those with missing information about key variables, including age, marital status, employment type, and education level. Out of the original sample of 1,500 women in the cohort and their 25,430 yearly observations, we use a sample of 1,103 women and their 19,548 observations in our calibration.

Employment Type Classifications: In classifying female workers’ employment types, we use JPSC’s questions about an individual’s job. A JPSC question asks respondents about their employment status. The response categories in 1993-2009 are (1) regular job

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(*seishain* or *seishokuin*), (2) part-time job, and (3) entrusted job (*shokutaku*) and others. After 2009, the answers include more items (1) regular job, (2) dispatched worker, (3) contract or entrusted job and others, (4) part-time job and (5) self-employed and family employee. We exclude self-employed workers based on responses to different questions (Q1025, Q144, and Q859) and classify the remaining employed workers who select (1) as regular workers, and those who select (2) or (3) in the 1993-2009 surveys and (2)-(4) in the 2009-2018 surveys as contingent workers.

1.2 Children of Married Couples

We use the equivalence scale of the OECD to adjust for the family size in computing consumption of households. A single-person household contains one adult, whereas a married household contains two adults plus children. For the number of children aged 18 or younger, we use the JPSC data by computing the average number of children by the age and skill level of married women. Figure 1 shows the average number of children aged 18 and below for women by age and skill.

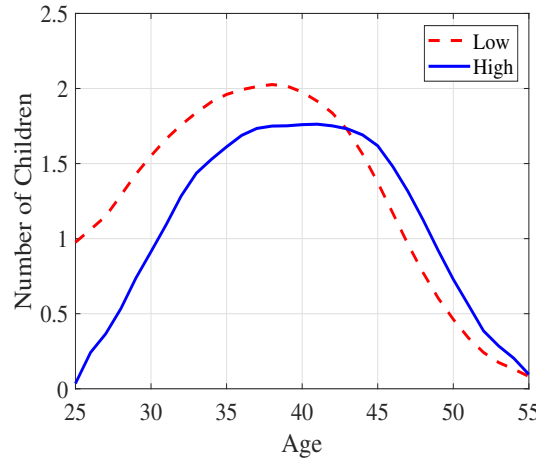


Figure 1: Average Number of Children in Married Couples by Age and Skill of Women: JPSC Data

1.3 Earnings of Men

We use earnings data of our JPSC samples' husbands. The profiles of earnings for low and high-skilled men are in line with those estimated using other data sources such as the BSWs.¹ Figure 2 shows men's average earnings by age and skill.

¹See, for example, [Kitao and Mikoshiba \(2020\)](#).

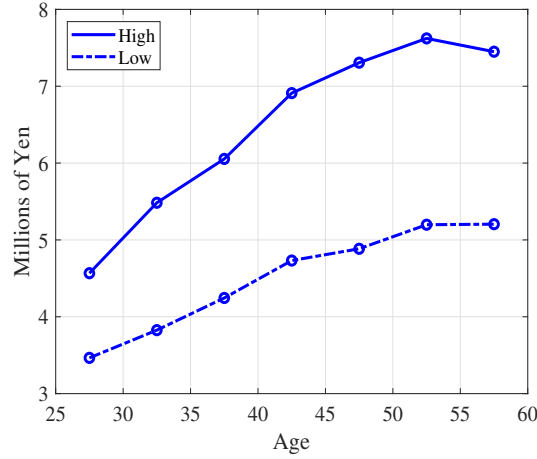


Figure 2: Men's Earnings by Skill: JPSC Data

1.4 Participation Rates and Earnings of the ESS Data

In this section, we report the average participation rates and earnings for men and women using the Employment Status Survey (ESS) of the Ministry of Internal Affairs and Communications. The ESS is a large-scale cross-sectional survey of individuals conducted every five years, which covers more than 500,000 households and 1.1 million individuals.² We use the data from seven surveys between 1987 and 2017 to study the labor market experience of individuals born between 1963 and 1967. Although the ESS is not a panel dataset, we construct the labor market profiles of a synthetic cohort by connecting data of different age groups over the thirty-year period.

Figure 3a shows participation rates of the 1963-67 cohort and Figure 3b shows the cohort's average earnings. The profiles are in line with the JPSC data we reported in the paper.

²The figures are for the 2017 survey, the most recent survey data available at the webpage. The survey was conducted every three years until 1982 and every five years since 1987.

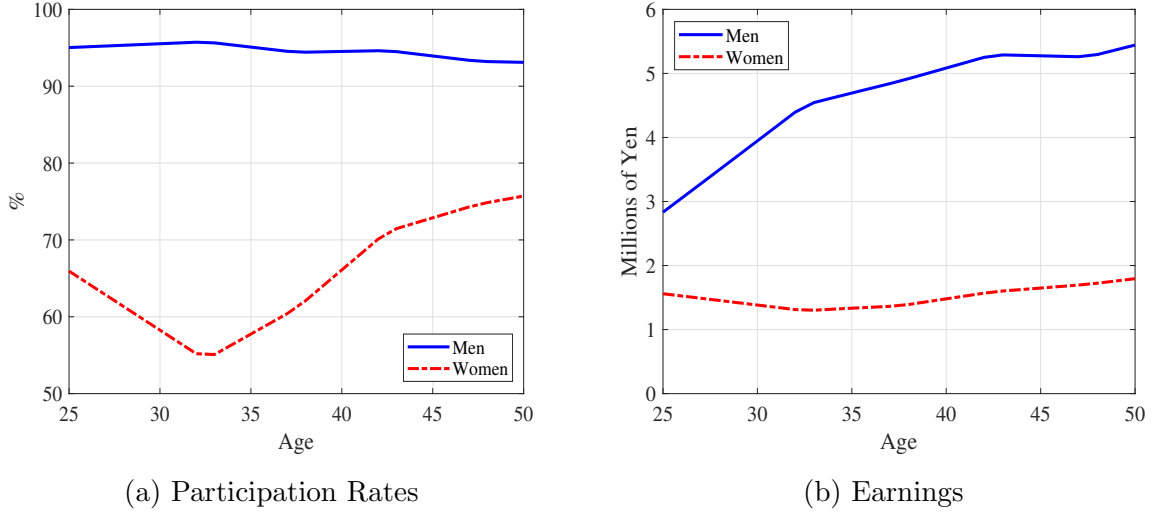


Figure 3: Employment Status Survey (ESS) Data

1.5 Gender Inequality and International Comparison

In our model, we assume that men supply labor inelastically and always work in regular jobs and earn more than women. Figure 4 shows the distribution of employment types among men in the JPSC sample. Note that JPSC follows cohorts of women and collects detailed information on their household members. Therefore, the male sample in our data consists primarily of husbands, including both those who are employed and those out of the labor force. As the figure illustrates, most men are engaged in regular employment, which in Japan is typically characterized by long and relatively rigid working hours. Based on this empirical pattern, we assume that men in our model supply labor inelastically, not making choices about employment types or work hours.

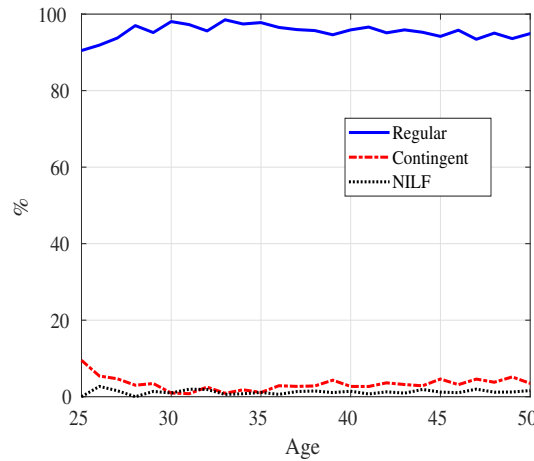


Figure 4: Men's Employment Status by Age: JPSC Data

Regarding gender inequality in the Japanese labor market, it is important to emphasize

that women's participation rates are not particularly low by international standards. In fact, the average labor force participation rate of Japanese women exceeds the OECD average and is higher than that of the U.S. across all age groups, as shown in the right panel of Figure 5. Therefore, the widely recognized gender inequality in Japan does not primarily arise from differences in participation rates. Instead, the key source of gender inequality lies in the substantial gap in labor income between men and women. This reflects differences in employment types, hours worked, and career progression, rather than whether individuals participate in the labor force per se.

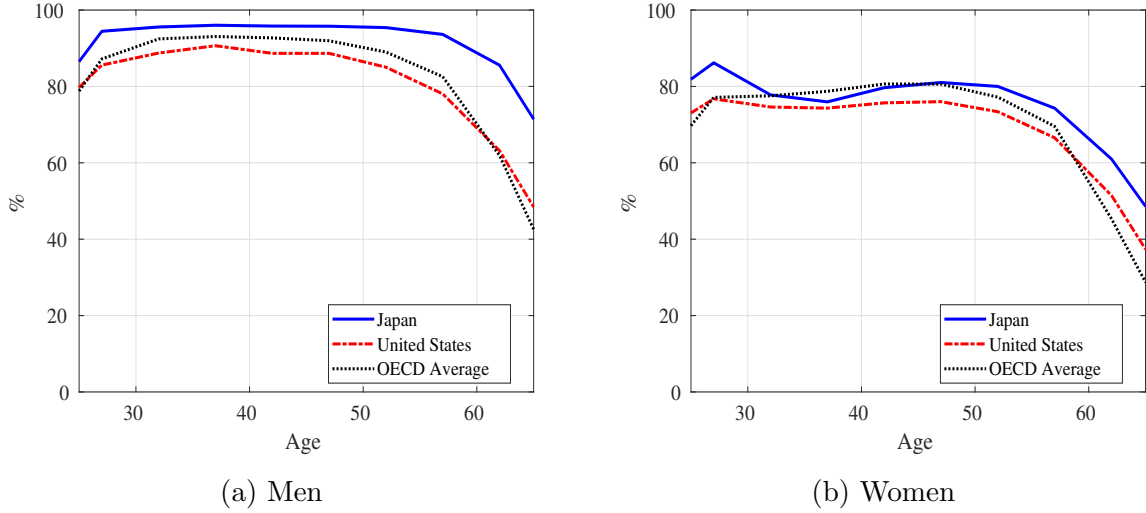


Figure 5: Men's and Women's Participation Rates in Japan, the United States, and the OECD Average, 2020

Men's labor force participation rates in Japan are extremely high by international standards. As shown in the left panel of Figure 5, Japanese male participation rates exceed those in the U.S. and are well above the OECD average across all age groups. This cross-country evidence supports our modeling assumption of inelastic male labor supply as an empirically reasonable simplification.

1.6 Marriage Rates over the Life-cycle

Figure 6 plots the age-specific marriage rates for men (pooled across skill levels) and for women by skill level that are used in the calibration. The marriage rates for women by skill level are computed using the JPSC, while those for men are computed using Census data. There is significant variation across ages, but for both genders the marriage rate declines sharply after the late 30s and approaches zero by the mid-40s.

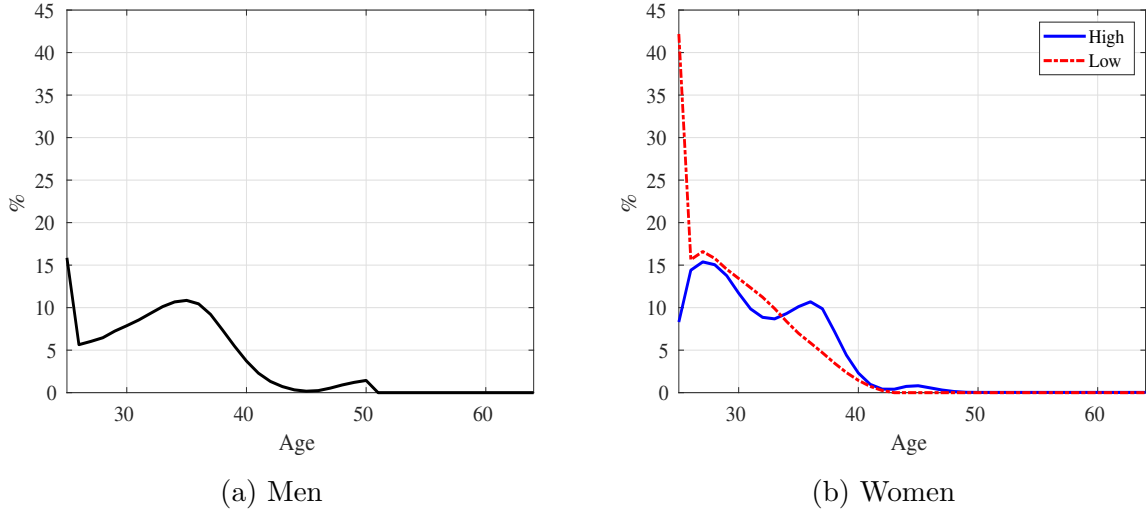


Figure 6: Marriage Rates by Gender, Age and Skill: Census and JPSC Data

1.7 Housework Hours

Figure 7 shows housework hours over the life-cycle for single women, married women, and men. Although we report housework hours for both women and men, we abstract from men’s housework time in the model because men’s time allocation is exogenous.

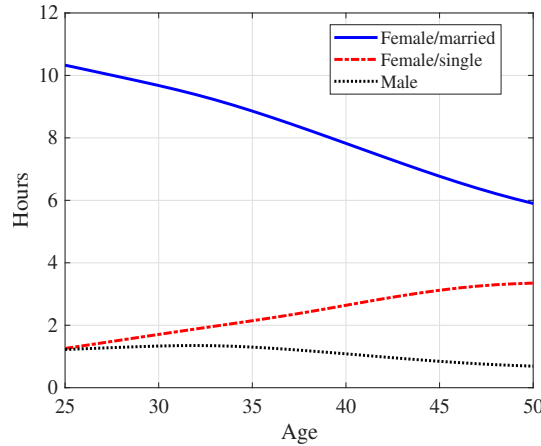


Figure 7: Housework Hours by Gender and Marital Status: JPSC Data

The JPSC asks respondents to report their total hours spent on housework and child-care, but it does not collect hours for each activity separately. Therefore, to calibrate housework hours $home_{q,j}$, we use the reported hours of employed women without a child aged 0–5, separately by marital status and age. These calibrated values are subtracted from total disposable time when computing leisure. Figure 8 presents the resulting life-cycle profiles used as inputs in the model.

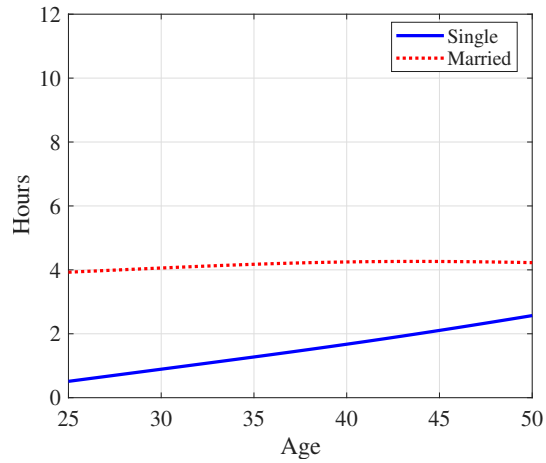


Figure 8: Housework Hours by Marital Status: Employed Women without a Child Aged 0-5, JPSC Data

2 Calibration: Fiscal Policies

2.1 Labor Income Tax Rates

Labor income taxation is progressive and consists of national and local taxes. The range of marginal tax rates at the national level changed over our sample years, from 10-50% in 1989 to the current range of 5-45%, as shown in Table 1. Local taxes are shown in Table 2.³ We use the sum of these in the computation.

³Note that in our simulations we let individuals enter the labor market at age 25 in 1989.

Table 1: Progressive Labor Income Tax Rates at the National Level

Years	Labor income (million yen)	Tax Rate (%)
1989-1994	$y \leq 3$	10
	$3 < y \leq 6$	20
	$6 < y \leq 10$	30
	$10 < y \leq 20$	40
	$y > 20$	50
1995-1998	$y \leq 3.3$	10
	$3.3 < y \leq 9$	20
	$9 < y \leq 18$	30
	$18 < y \leq 30$	40
	$y > 30$	50
1999-2006	$y \leq 3.3$	10
	$3.3 < y \leq 9$	20
	$9 < y \leq 18$	30
	$y > 18$	37
2007-2014	$y \leq 1.95$	5
	$1.95 < y \leq 3.3$	10
	$3.3 < y \leq 6.95$	20
	$6.95 < y \leq 9$	23
	$9 < y \leq 18$	33
	$y > 18$	40
2015-present	$y \leq 1.95$	5
	$1.95 < y \leq 3.3$	10
	$3.3 < y \leq 6.95$	20
	$6.95 < y \leq 9$	23
	$9 < y \leq 18$	33
	$18 < y \leq 40$	40
	$y > 40$	45

Source: The Ministry of Finance (*Zaisei kinyu tokei geppo*).

Table 2: Labor Income Tax Rates at the Local Level

Years	Labor income (million yen)	Tax Rate (%)
1989-1990	$y \leq 1.2$	5
	$1.2 < y \leq 5$	10
	$y > 5$	15
1991-1994	$y \leq 1.6$	5
	$1.6 < y \leq 5.5$	10
	$y > 5.5$	15
1995-1996	$y \leq 2$	5
	$2 < y \leq 7$	10
	$y > 7$	15
1997-1998	$y \leq 2$	5
	$2 < y \leq 7$	10
	$y > 7$	15
1999-2006	$y \leq 2$	5
	$2 < y \leq 7$	10
	$y > 7$	13
2007-present	All y	10

Source: The Ministry of Internal Affairs and Communications (*Chihouzei ni kansuru toukeitou*). Tax rates are the sum of taxes at city and prefecture levels.

2.2 Income Tax Deductions

Labor income tax is computed by first subtracting deductions from gross earnings and then multiplying progressive tax rates at each tax bracket as presented above. Our model includes three deductions: basic deductions (*kiso koujo*), salary income deductions (*kyuyo shotoku koujo*) and spousal deductions. Spousal deductions include both regular spousal deductions (*haigusha koujo*) and special spousal deductions (*haigusha tokubetsu koujo*).

Basic deductions are a fixed amount, 350,000 yen in 1989-1994, 380,000 yen in 1995-2019, and 480,000 yen in 2020 and thereafter. Salary deductions increase with earnings with a minimum amount of 650,000 yen in 1989-2019, and 550,000 yen after 2019. Total deductions including basic and salary income deductions are 1 million yen in 1989-1994 and 1.03 million yen after 1995. Individuals do not pay any labor income tax for earnings below the applicable threshold.⁴

⁴Salary deductions increase in earnings at decreasing rates, which fall from 40% to 0%. See the website of the National Tax Agency for more details about basic and salary income deductions (in Japanese).

The maximum spousal deduction is 760,000 yen in 1987-2003, and is reduced to 380,000 yen in 2004. The amount decreases with earnings of a spouse, as summarized in Table 3.⁵

Table 3: Spousal Deductions (in 1,000 yen)

Spouse's Labor Income (1,000 yen)	Regular Deductions 1987-pres.	Special Deductions			Total Spousal Deductions		
		1987-03	2004-17	2018-pres.	1987-03	2004-17	2018-pres.
0-	380	380	0	0	760	380	380
700-	380	330	0	0	710	380	380
750-	380	280	0	0	660	380	380
⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮
950-	380	80	0	0	460	380	380
1,000-	380	30	0	0	410	380	380
1,030-	0	380	380	380	380	380	380
1,050-	0	360	360	380	360	360	380
1,100-	0	310	310	380	310	310	380
⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮
1,400-	0	30	30	380	30	30	380
1,410-	0	0	0	380	0	0	380
1,500-	0	0	0	360	0	0	360
1,550-	0	0	0	310	0	0	310
⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮
2,016-	0	0	0	0	0	0	0

Source: The National Tax Agency, [Yokoyama and Kodama \(2016\)](#).

2.3 Social Insurance Programs

Public Pension Premiums: Recall that Category-I insured people pay a fixed premium for public pensions and those who are covered by employers as Category-II insured employees pay a fixed fraction of their earnings as premiums.

The premium for Category-I insured individuals was 96,000 yen annually in 1989 and gradually increased to 159,600 yen in 2000, and 181,200 yen in 2010 and reached 199,320

Basic deductions: <https://www.nta.go.jp/taxes/shiraberu/taxanswer/shotoku/1199.htm>

Salary income deductions: <https://www.nta.go.jp/taxes/shiraberu/taxanswer/shotoku/1410.htm>

⁵[Yokoyama and Kodama \(2016\)](#) (Table 1) nicely summarize the history of the spousal deduction policy since it started in 1961. Our table follows their summary and incorporates the policy rules from 1987 onward, including the post-2018 rules relevant to our analysis.

yen in 2021. The rate was 12.4% in 1989, 17.35% in 2000, and 15.704% in 2010, and has remained at 18.3% since 2018. The premium is shared equally by an employer and an employee.

The JPSC survey directly asks women about their insurance categories (Category I, II and III) in 2004 and thereafter and their answers are used in computing average insurance premiums. In 1993-2003, they survey asked only about each woman’s type of public pension and health insurance, rather than directly about her insurance category. Therefore, for these years, we construct women’s insurance categories using the information about their marital status, labor income, and insurance types of public pension and health insurance.

Health and Long-term Care Insurance Premiums: Health insurance premium rates for the Japan Health Insurance Association (JHIA, *kyokai kenpo*) are shown in Table 4. Long-term care insurance rates change each year, rising from 0.6% in 2000 to 1.8% in 2021.⁶ Note that long-term care insurance started in 2000 and only those aged 40 and above pay the premium. Employers pay half of the premium for both health and long-term care insurance and employees pay the remainder.

Table 4: Health Insurance Premium Rates

Years	Premium Rate (%)
1989	8.3
1990-1991	8.4
1992-1996	8.2
1997-2002	8.5
2003-2009	8.2
2010	9.34
2011	9.5
2012-present	10

Source: The Japan Health Insurance Association (JHIA).

Social Insurance Coverage at Work: As explained in section 2 of Kitao and Mikoshiba (2026), Category-II insured are those who are enrolled in the social insurance through employers. Not all firms are required to offer social insurance and the requirements depend on the size of the firm and work hours of employees.

⁶See the website of the JHIA for more details. <https://www.kyoukaikenpo.or.jp/g7/cat330/hokenryouritunohennsenn/>. The JHIA is the largest insurance group that provides health and long-term care insurance.

Firms with more than five regular employees must offer social insurance and contribute half of the insurance premiums for eligible employees, which include all regular workers and some non-regular workers. Non-regular workers who work more than 30 hours per week, or at least 75% of the hours worked by regular employees, are eligible for coverage through their employer. In addition, as of 2021, non-regular workers who work between 20 and 30 hours per week in a firm with more than 500 employees, expect to work for more than a year, and earn more than 1.06 million yen annually are also eligible for coverage.

3 Value Functions: One Year before Retirement

The value functions of households one year before retirement are defined similarly to those of working-age households, except that their value functions in the next period are those of retirees. We present below the value functions of single women and men and married couples of age $j^R - 1$.

Young Single Women:

$$S^f(j, s_f, a, \mathbf{x}, e_{-1}, \bar{p}_f) = \max_{c, a', e, l_f} \left\{ u^S(c, l_f) + \beta \tilde{S}^f(j+1, a', \bar{p}'_f) \right\}$$

subject to

$$\begin{aligned} (1 + \tau^c)c + a' + o_{j,f} &= Ra + y_f - T^S(y_f) + tr \\ a' &\geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Young Single Men:

$$S^m(j, s_m, a) = \max_{c, a'} \left\{ u^S(c, l_m) + \beta \tilde{S}^m(j+1, a', \bar{p}'_m) \right\}$$

subject to

$$\begin{aligned} (1 + \tau^c)c + a' + o_{j,m} &= Ra + y_m - T^S(y_m) + tr \\ a' &\geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Young Married Couples:

$$M(j, s_m, s_f, a, \mathbf{x}, e_{-1}, \bar{p}_f, i_k) = \max_{c, a', e, l_f} \left\{ u^M(c, l_m, l_f) + \beta \tilde{M}(j+1, a', \bar{p}'_m, \bar{p}'_f) \right\}$$

subject to

$$\begin{aligned} (1 + \tau^c)c + a' + \sum_g o_{j,g} &= Ra + \sum_g y_g - T^M(y_m, y_f) + tr \\ a' &\geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

4 More on Numerical Results

4.1 Employment Patterns of Married Women with and without Children

Children play an important role in shaping female employment over the life cycle. In the model, children affect labor supply through childcare time requirements, which increase the opportunity cost of market work. The childcare burden declines as children grow older, allowing married women to increase labor market participation later in life.

Figure 9 compares employment patterns of married women with and without children aged 5 or younger in the JPSC data. Women with children exhibit substantially lower employment rates throughout the life cycle than women without children. The figure also shows that many women re-enter the labor force as their children grow older. When returning to work, they are more likely to take contingent jobs than regular jobs.

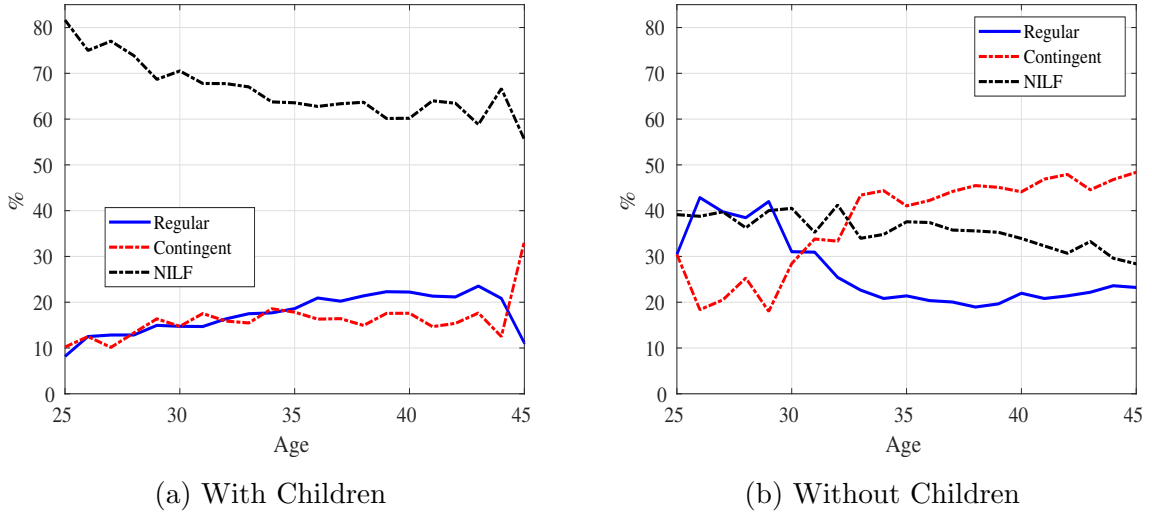


Figure 9: Married Women's Labor Force Participation Rates by Employment Status with and without Children: JPSC Data

Figure 10 presents the corresponding results from the model. The model reproduces the broad differences in employment patterns between married women with and without children observed in the data. In particular, it captures the lower labor force participation of married women during the child-rearing years and their gradual return to employment, primarily through contingent work, later in life.

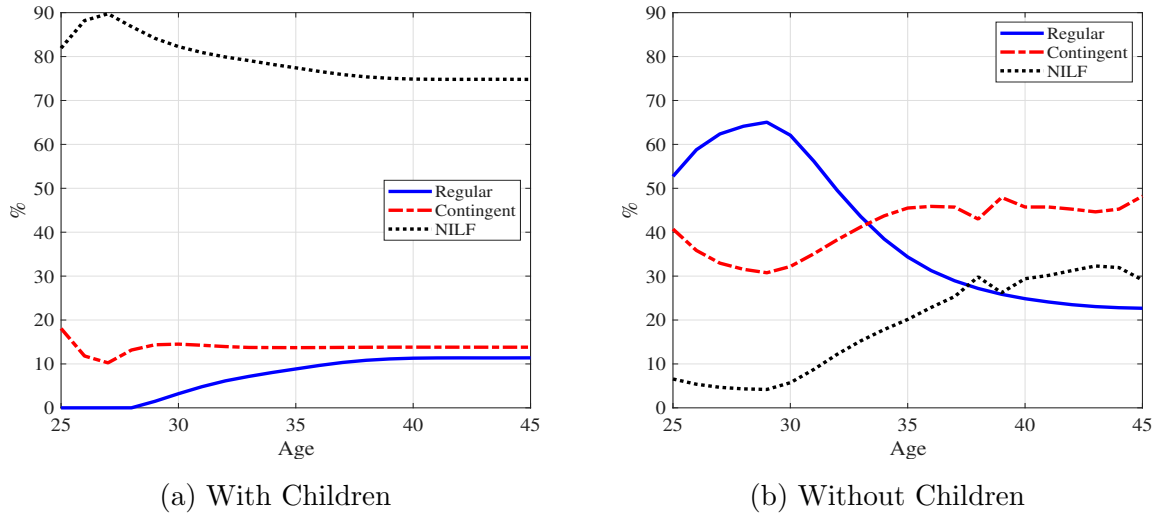


Figure 10: Married Women's Labor Force Participation Rates by Employment Status with and without Children: Model

4.2 Asset Profiles

This appendix describes the asset profiles in the baseline model and under the policy experiments. Figure 11 shows the asset profiles of households by age and marital status in the model and data. The model captures the overall pattern of life-cycle asset accumulation, as well as the differences between single and married households. However, it understates the level of assets observed in the data, particularly among younger households.

There are several reasons for this difference. First, the model abstracts from idiosyncratic shocks, such as labor productivity and medical expenditure shocks, which would generate precautionary saving motives. Second, we do not incorporate intergenerational linkages, such as bequests, inter vivos transfers, and investments in children's education. Finally, individuals are assumed to enter the economy at age 25 with zero assets. While these features would increase life-cycle savings, they are unlikely to have a first-order effect on employment decisions. We therefore abstract from these additional saving mechanisms to keep the model tractable and focused on the labor supply and employment effects of the policies.

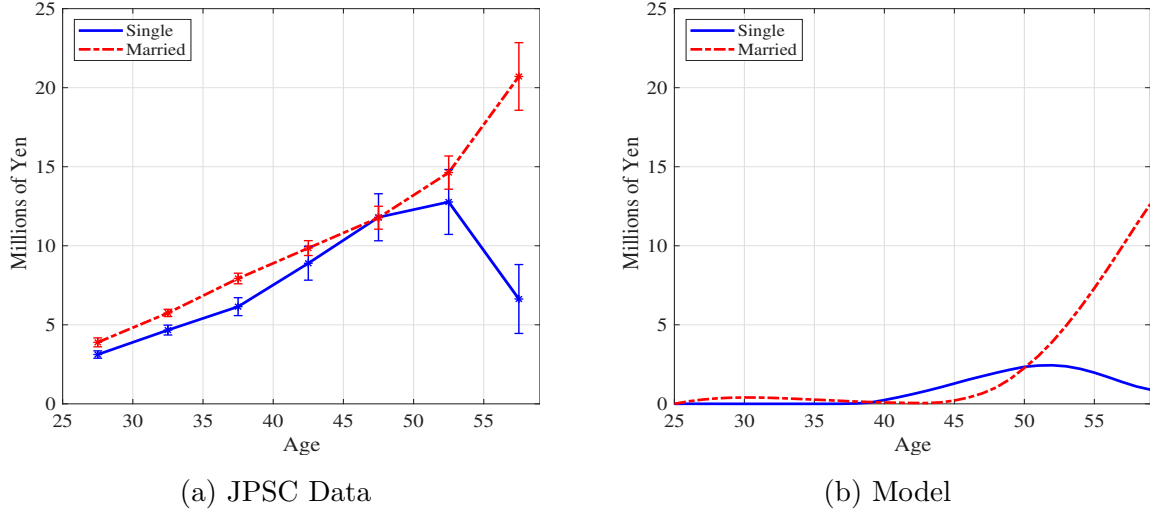


Figure 11: Asset Profiles by Marital Status: Data and Model

Figure 12 shows the average asset profiles of households under the baseline economy and the three policy experiments. Households accumulate more assets under Experiment 3, which eliminates the survivors' pension benefits, because lower expected income increases the incentive to save. In contrast, households save less under Experiment 2, where more women are employed in regular jobs and therefore expect to receive higher pension benefits in retirement.

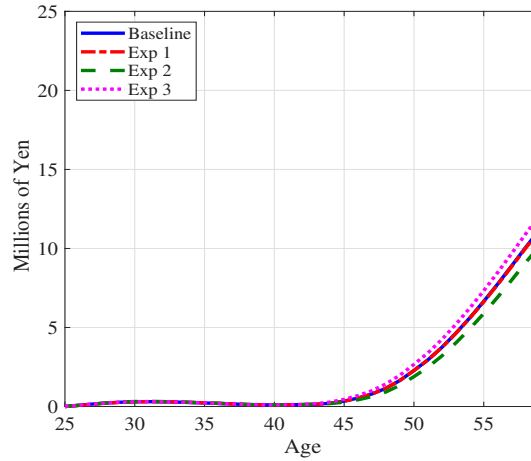


Figure 12: Asset Profiles under Alternative Policies

4.3 Welfare Effects on Men

The welfare effects of the policy experiments for men in the case without tax rebates are shown in Table 5. Since most men are married, they are adversely affected by the policies in a manner similar to that experienced by women. While the magnitude of welfare losses across experiments is comparable to that for women, high-skilled men experience larger

welfare losses than low-skilled men.

In Experiment 1, men whose spouses have zero or low earnings no longer benefit from the spousal income tax deduction. This effect is larger for high-income men because of the progressivity of the income tax schedule. Similar effects arise indirectly under Experiments 2 and 3, as more women work and earn enough to exceed the eligibility threshold for the deduction, thereby increasing the tax burden on their husbands, particularly those with higher incomes.

Table 5: Welfare Effects of Alternative Policies on Men (Without Tax Rebates, % in Consumption Equivalence)

	Exp 1	Exp 2	Exp 3
All	−1.07	−1.76	−0.76
Low	−0.92	−1.68	−0.51
High	−1.34	−1.90	−1.20

4.4 Transition of Employment Types

Tables 6 and 7 report the transition matrices across employment types by age group and skill level in the data and in the model. These transition probabilities are not targeted in the calibration. As shown in the tables, upward transitions from contingent to regular employment are rare both in the data and in the model because of the high calibrated switching costs.

Table 6: Transition of Employment Types: JPSC Data

(a) Low-skilled				(b) High-skilled			
	Employment Status at $t + 1$				Employment Status at $t + 1$		
	Regular	Contingent	NILF		Regular	Contingent	NILF
Age 25–29				Age 25–29			
Regular (t)	85.4	3.4	11.2	Regular (t)	91.2	1.6	7.3
Contingent (t)	7.7	72.3	20.1	Contingent (t)	20.0	45.0	35.0
NILF (t)	2.5	11.1	86.4	NILF (t)	6.7	5.0	88.3
Age 30–39				Age 30–39			
Regular (t)	90.9	4.3	4.8	Regular (t)	95.9	1.1	3.0
Contingent (t)	5.7	83.7	10.6	Contingent (t)	7.6	79.1	13.3
NILF (t)	1.3	12.0	86.7	NILF (t)	0.0	9.4	90.6
Age 40–49				Age 40–49			
Regular (t)	91.9	5.2	3.0	Regular (t)	95.9	1.9	2.2
Contingent (t)	3.9	90.8	5.3	Contingent (t)	4.4	87.7	7.9
NILF (t)	1.2	11.8	87.0	NILF (t)	2.2	14.6	83.2
Age 50–59				Age 50–59			
Regular (t)	95.2	2.4	2.4	Regular (t)	95.7	1.7	2.6
Contingent (t)	1.4	94.3	4.3	Contingent (t)	1.0	93.9	5.1
NILF (t)	1.5	8.9	89.6	NILF (t)	6.8	11.4	81.8

Table 7: Transition of Employment Types: Model

(a) Low-skilled				(b) High-skilled			
	Employment Status at $t + 1$				Employment Status at $t + 1$		
	Regular	Contingent	NILF		Regular	Contingent	NILF
Age 25–29				Age 25–29			
Regular (t)	88.2	7.9	3.9	Regular (t)	89.1	6.3	4.6
Contingent (t)	0.0	77.6	22.4	Contingent (t)	0.0	89.8	10.2
NILF (t)	0.0	2.3	97.7	NILF (t)	0.0	8.0	92.0
Age 30–39				Age 30–39			
Regular (t)	98.9	0.3	0.8	Regular (t)	96.9	0.4	2.6
Contingent (t)	0.0	98.9	1.1	Contingent (t)	0.0	97.8	2.2
NILF (t)	0.0	5.0	95.0	NILF (t)	0.0	3.4	96.6
Age 40–49				Age 40–49			
Regular (t)	99.4	0.6	0.0	Regular (t)	98.4	1.6	0.0
Contingent (t)	0.0	99.6	0.4	Contingent (t)	0.0	100.0	0.0
NILF (t)	0.0	3.0	97.0	NILF (t)	0.0	31.4	68.6
Age 50–59				Age 50–59			
Regular (t)	96.7	3.3	0.0	Regular (t)	97.6	2.4	0.0
Contingent (t)	0.0	98.4	1.6	Contingent (t)	0.0	99.1	0.9
NILF (t)	0.0	0.0	100.0	NILF (t)	0.0	18.8	81.2

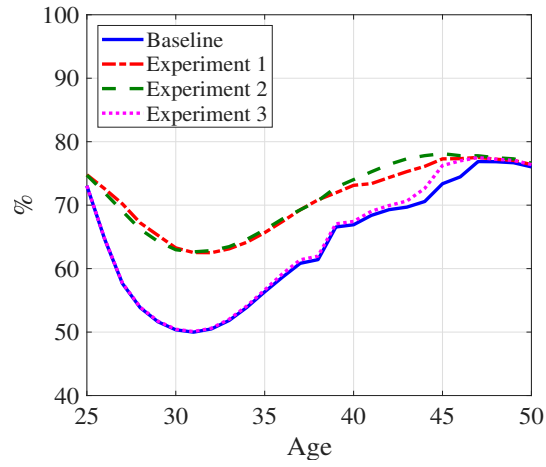
Lowering the switching cost for upward transitions increases movements from contingent to regular employment. At the same time, it also increases transitions from regular to contingent employment because workers anticipate that returning to regular employment in the future becomes less costly. The former effect dominates in the baseline model, leading to a higher steady-state share of regular employment than observed in the data when switching costs are reduced.

Conversely, once the switching costs become sufficiently high, upward transitions are already close to zero, and further increases have little effect on the model fit. Moreover, the policy experiments primarily affect the probability of downward transitions from regular to contingent employment rather than upward mobility. As a result, the quantitative effects of the policy experiments remain robust to further increases in the upward switching costs.

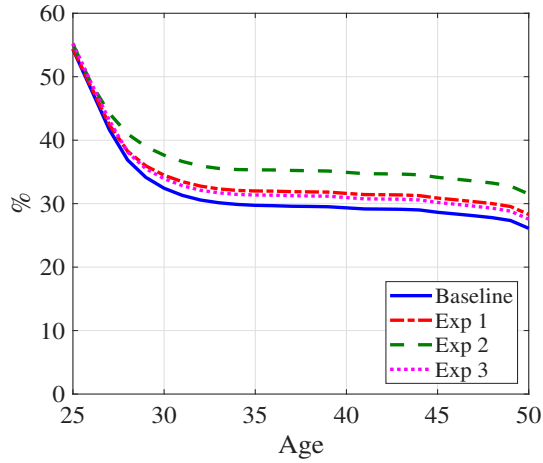
4.5 Employment and Earnings over the Life-cycle

This appendix presents additional figures illustrating the effects of the policy experiments on women's employment and earnings profiles over the life-cycle. Figure 13 shows overall labor force participation rates by age, together with the breakdown by employment type, in the baseline economy and under the three policy experiments. Figure 14 presents

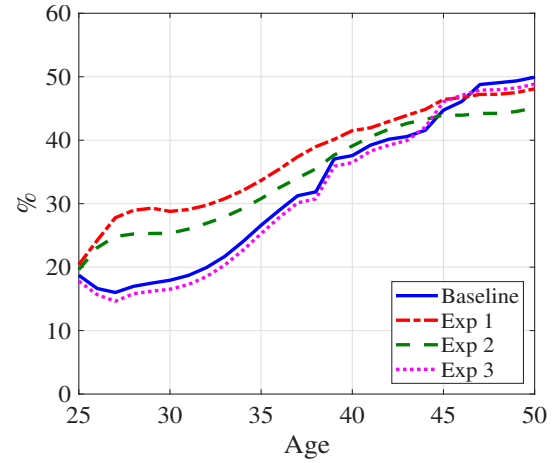
average female earnings by age, showing that the shift in the composition of employment types increases average earnings of women throughout the life-cycle.



(a) Total (Regular+Contingent)



(b) Regular



(c) Contingent

Figure 13: Women's Participation Rates Under Baseline and Alternative Scenarios

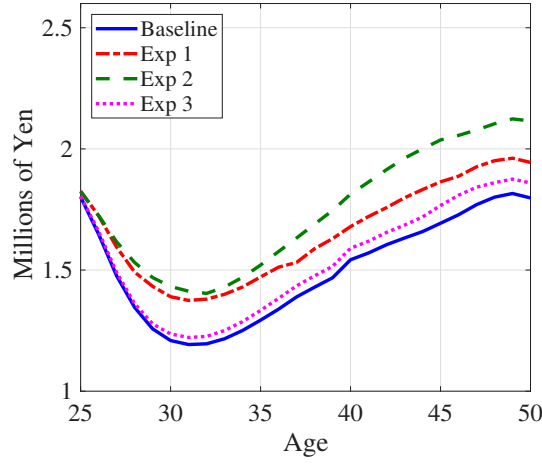


Figure 14: Women's Earnings under Baseline and Alternative Scenarios

4.6 Work Hours over the Life-cycle

Figure 15 shows the average daily work hours of women in our JPSC sample by employment type and skill. Women in regular employment work slightly more than 8 hours per day, with little variation over the life cycle.

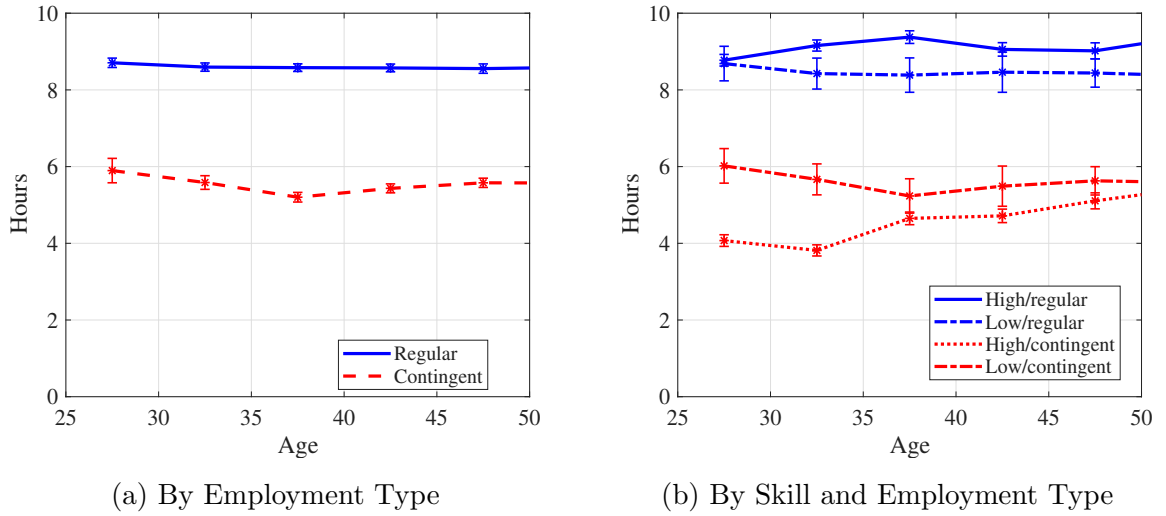


Figure 15: Average Work Hours Per Day: JPSC Data

Figure 16 compares the average work hours of women in contingent employment in the model and in the JPSC data. Although the model slightly underpredicts the level of hours worked, it matches the average hours reasonably well, and both the model and the data exhibit a relatively flat life-cycle profile.

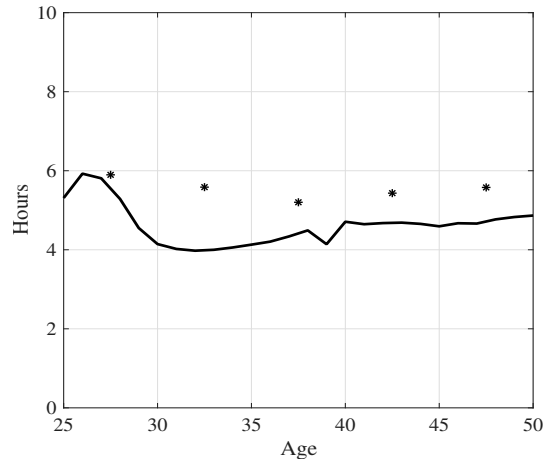


Figure 16: Average Work Hours of Women in Contingent Employment: Model (Solid Line) and JPSC Data (Dots)

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